Siamese metric learning for generalised few-shot recognition of rare viruses in transmission electron microscopy images

[Author One][a,*], [Author Two][a]

[a] *[Department, University], [Street], [City], [Postcode], [Country]*

Abstract

Background and Objective: The public TEM virus dataset contains 22 virus classes, but its benchmark covers only the 14 most frequent; the eight rare viruses, with 5–25 training micrographs each, have never been evaluated on the official split. We asked whether a Siamese metric-learning encoder can recognise these rare viruses without being trained on them.

Methods: A DenseNet201 encoder was trained with a supervised contrastive loss on the 14 base classes. Rare classes were added at test time as class prototypes (generalised few-shot learning). We compared it with a re-implementation of the dataset's benchmark classifier under identical, leakage-audited evaluation on the official micrograph-level split, selected every hyperparameter on validation, and estimated uncertainty with a micrograph-level cluster bootstrap and paired tests.

Results: On the 14 base classes the encoder reached 94.77 ± 0.18 % accuracy (macro-sensitivity 0.945 ± 0.003, macro-specificity 0.9958 ± 0.0001), statistically indistinguishable from the re-trained baseline (94.53 %). Over all 22 classes, nearest-prototype classification gave macro-F1 0.786 ± 0.008.

*Corresponding author.

Email address: corresponding.author@example.org ([Author One])

Confused rare classes were nearly linearly separable in the learned features, and a validation-selected logistic regression on the frozen features raised macro-F1 to 0.846 ± 0.012. With one example per rare virus, the Siamese features gave higher rare-class accuracy than the baseline's features (37.3 ± 2.3 % vs 30.5 %); from three examples onwards, and with full rare-class data, they did not.

Conclusions: Siamese metric learning matches a strong classifier on this benchmark and helps in the one-shot regime. Most of the attainable gain on rare viruses comes from the decision rule rather than the representation.

Keywords: transmission electron microscopy, virus classification, few-shot learning, metric learning, rare classes

1. Introduction

Negative-stain transmission electron microscopy (TEM) can identify a virus without prior knowledge of what to look for, but interpreting the images requires scarce expertise. This has motivated automatic classification of virus particles in TEM images. Matuszewski and Sintorn released the largest public TEM virus dataset [1, 2]: 1,245 micrographs of 22 viruses, patches at 1 nm/pixel and an official, representative, micrograph-level train/validation/test split. Their benchmark uses the 14 most frequent classes; a fine-tuned DenseNet201 reached 93.1 % test accuracy. Eight classes were excluded because they had too few images to train and evaluate a classifier.

Subsequent work concentrated on the 14-class problem, using ensembles of CNNs and transformers [3], rotation-equivariant networks [4] and dual-

branch CNNs [5]. Several results were obtained under protocols other than the official split, for example a random split of the augmented patch set [5]. Two studies used all 22 classes [6, 7], training a closed-set classifier on all of them; neither reports per-class results for the rare viruses or uses the official split for them.

Rare viruses are, however, the realistic diagnostic case: a newly emerging virus will always have few reference images. This is the setting of few-shot learning, and more precisely of generalised few-shot learning (GFSL), in which new classes must be recognised alongside the training classes [8]. Siamese and metric-learning approaches [9, 10, 11, 12] fit it naturally: a shared-weight encoder maps patches of the same virus close together, and a new virus is represented by the mean embedding (prototype) of its few examples, without retraining. The few-shot literature also cautions that a good embedding with a simple classifier often matches elaborate meta-learning [13, 14], and that methods tuned on natural images may not transfer to distant domains [15]. A credible evaluation must therefore compare against a strong classification baseline under identical conditions.

To our knowledge no published work has applied metric-learning few-shot methods to this dataset or evaluated its rare classes as few-shot classes. Our contributions are: (i) a GFSL protocol for all 22 classes on the official split, in which the rare classes are never used for training and every choice is made on validation; (ii) a Siamese supervised-contrastive encoder compared with a faithful re-implementation of the benchmark classifier under identical evaluation; (iii) a diagnosis showing that rare-class errors stem from the nearest-prototype decision rule rather than the representation, and

an evaluation of classifiers on frozen features that addresses them; and (iv) full reporting of negative results, with code, logs and per-patch predictions released.

2. Methods

2.1. Dataset and leakage control

We used the official patch folders of the dataset [2]: 256×256-pixel patches centred on annotated particles, after rescaling to 1 nm/pixel. The split assigns whole micrographs to train, validation or test (about 60/20/20 %) [1]. The 14 benchmark classes are the *base* classes; the eight excluded classes, which the dataset provides in the same split, are the *rare* classes (Table 1). The pre-augmented, class-balanced training set (736 patches per base class) was used only to re-implement the benchmark classifier, as in the original work.

Each patch was standardised to zero mean and unit variance [1] and its grey channel replicated to three channels; patches were not resized. Before training we audited the data at pixel level: none of the 16,441 training and augmented-training patches is identical to any rotation or reflection of a validation or test patch, and no test patch matches a validation patch.

2.2. Siamese metric-learning encoder

The encoder is an ImageNet-pretrained DenseNet201 [16, 17]. Global average pooling gives a 1,920-dimensional *backbone feature*; a projection head (1,920→512→128, L2-normalised) produces the embedding used by the loss. All patches pass through the same weights, so similarities are computed in

one shared space. The network was trained with the supervised contrastive loss [12] (temperature 0.1) on batches of 14 classes × 4 patches, drawing the patches of a class from different micrographs where possible. Augmentation used the eight exact rotations and reflections of the square and translations of up to ±8 pixels, which preserve physical scale. We used AdamW [18] (learning rates 5×10^{-5} for the backbone and 5×10^{-4} for the head, weight decay 10^{-4}, cosine schedule, at most 40 epochs). The checkpoint with the highest validation macro-F1 of nearest-prototype classification over the base classes was kept. The rare classes were never seen during training or model selection.

Pilot experiments in which four base classes were withheld from training showed that the backbone feature transfers to unseen classes whereas the 128-dimensional head does not (Appendix Appendix A). We therefore fixed the backbone feature as the representation for all experiments before evaluating the main models.

2.3. Baselines

B1 re-implements the best benchmark model [1] from its published configuration and code: DenseNet201, two fully connected layers of 1,024 units with dropout 0.3, and a 14-way softmax, trained with cross-entropy on the augmented training set (Adam, learning rate 10^{-5}, batch size 12, 50 epochs, best validation accuracy). B1 was trained with 1 seed(s) and the Siamese encoder with 3. B1's pooled DenseNet201 features also serve as an alternative backbone in every few-shot experiment, which isolates the effect of the training objective. **B2**, a DenseNet201 with a linear head trained with class-balanced sampling on all 22 classes, sees the rare classes during train-

ing and is reported only as a fully supervised reference. Two loss ablations were trained once: batch-hard triplet loss [19] and SupCon plus an auxiliary cosine-classifier term [13].

2.4. Evaluation protocols

All results are on the official test split, with each patch represented by the mean over its eight rotations and reflections, computed with mixed-precision (fp16 autocast) inference. *Closed set (14 classes):* nearest class mean with cosine similarity, prototypes from all training patches; B1 uses its softmax. *GFSL (22 classes):* prototypes for all classes from the training split; the 2,057 test patches are classified among all 22 classes. We report accuracy, macro-F1, base-class accuracy and rare-class mean per-class accuracy; the last is preferred to pooled accuracy because rare test sets range from 7 to 44 patches. *K-shot GFSL:* as GFSL, but each rare class receives only $K \in \{1, 3, 5, 10\}$ training patches from different micrographs (100 random draws); base classes keep all training patches. Episode and unknown-virus detection results are given in Appendix Appendix B.

2.5. Classifiers on frozen features

To test whether rare-class errors stem from the representation or from the decision rule, we fitted four classifiers on the frozen backbone features of every checkpoint, without modifying the encoder: nearest class mean (NCM); L2-regularised logistic regression (LR) with class-balanced weights [14]; a Mahalanobis classifier with class covariances shrunk towards the pooled covariance in a 64–256-dimensional principal-component space, following Simple CNAPS [20]; and distribution calibration (DC), which samples synthetic

features for each rare class from the statistics of its nearest base classes [21]. Each classifier was fitted on the training split and its hyper-parameters chosen by 22-class validation macro-F1; the chosen setting was applied once to the test split. Before seeing any test result we fixed the rule that the classifier with the highest validation macro-F1 is the one reported as the improvement; all four are reported. In a separability diagnostic, a binary LR was trained on the training patches of each of eight confusable pairs and evaluated on their validation patches.

2.6. Statistics

Confidence intervals (95 %) come from a stratified micrograph-level cluster bootstrap that resamples micrographs within classes [22]. Paired comparisons on identical test patches use a paired cluster bootstrap of the difference in accuracy and macro-F1, together with an exact McNemar test [23]. McNemar treats patches as independent and is anti-conservative when patches share micrographs, so conclusions rest on the cluster bootstrap. K-shot comparisons are paired over identical support draws. Values over seeds are mean $\pm$ standard deviation.

2.7. Implementation

Experiments used PyTorch 2.11 and scikit-learn on one NVIDIA RTX 3060 (12 GB). Training took 19–28 min per Siamese seed and about 134 min for B1.

3. Results

3.1. 14-class benchmark

The Siamese encoder matched B1 (Table 2). The paired difference for seed 0 was +0.47 points of accuracy (95 % CI [-1.29, +2.09]) and +0.006 macro-F1 ([-0.010, +0.032]); McNemar: 48 vs 39 discordant patches, $p = 0.39$. Both models exceeded the published 93.1 %; because test-time augmentation and implementation details differ, B1 rather than the published figure is the fair comparator. The 128-dimensional head scored slightly higher on the base classes (95.70 $\pm$ 0.38 %), but it was not the pre-specified representation, its CI against B1 includes zero ([-0.38, +3.06]), and it fails on unseen classes (Section 3.2).

3.2. 22-class generalised few-shot recognition

With nearest-prototype classification, Siamese features slightly outperformed B1 features on all 22 classes (Table 3); for seed 0 the paired accuracy difference was +1.99 points, but its cluster CI [-0.60, +4.75] includes zero (McNemar $p = 0.0007$, illustrating its anti-conservatism). The 128-dimensional head collapsed on the rare classes (rare mean-class accuracy 33–43 %). A large gap remained to B2, which was trained on the rare classes. Errors concentrated in a few rare viruses: 32–35 of the 44 Dengue test patches were assigned to Sapovirus in every seed.

3.3. Rare classes are separable

Every confusable pair was close to linearly separable in the learned features (validation AUROC ≥ 0.94; Table 4), yet the two-class nearest-mean

rule was far below the linear boundary for several pairs. For Sapovirus versus Astrovirus it was near chance (0.46–0.53) while LR reached 0.86–0.91. The information needed to recognise the rare viruses is therefore present in the representation but not exploited by isotropic distance to a class mean. The rare-class validation sets are small (10–16 patches), so these values are indicative.

3.4. Classifiers on frozen features

The pre-declared rule selected LR for every checkpoint (Table 5). For the Siamese encoder, LR raised 22-class macro-F1 from 0.786 ± 0.008 to 0.846 ± 0.012 and accuracy from $89.56 \pm 0.36\,\%$ to $92.71 \pm 0.39\,\%$, while base-class accuracy also rose (91.8 ± 0.3 to $94.6 \pm 0.2\,\%$). The paired macro-F1 difference between LR and NCM ranged from PENDING; its cluster CI PENDING. Dengue F1 rose from 0.12 to 0.37, Sapovirus from 0.20 to 0.36 and Guanarito from 0.43 to 0.77 (Appendix Table B.8). The Mahalanobis classifier reached a similar macro-F1 (0.858 ± 0.007), but its validation optimum was nearly flat across settings (smallest gap between the best two settings 0.0017), so its test result depends on near-ties; we report it as secondary.

With full rare-class training data the advantage of the Siamese objective disappeared: LR on B1 features reached macro-F1 0.870. Across Siamese–B1 pairs, the paired LR difference ranged from PENDING (PENDING of PENDING pairs with a CI excluding zero).

Classifiers that estimate more parameters needed more data. With one example per rare class, LR fell to $18.0 \pm 0.2\,\%$ rare mean-class accuracy against $38.5 \pm 3.8\,\%$ for NCM, whereas DC improved on NCM ($45.9 \pm 2.7\,\%$;

paired difference PENDING points, significant for PENDING of PENDING checkpoints).

3.5. Few-shot regime

With one training patch per rare virus, Siamese features gave higher rare-class accuracy than B1 features (37.3 ± 2.3 % vs 30.5 %; Table 6); paired over identical support draws, the difference ranged from PENDING points and was significant for PENDING of PENDING Siamese–B1 pairs. From three examples onwards B1 features were equal or better.

4. Discussion

Under an identical, leakage-audited protocol, a Siamese supervised-contrastive encoder with a nearest-prototype classifier matched a re-implementation of the strongest published benchmark model on the 14 base classes, and its features allow new virus classes to be added without retraining. In the most data-scarce setting, a single reference patch per new virus, it recognised rare viruses better than features learned with cross-entropy. This is the regime that motivates few-shot learning for diagnostic TEM: the first image of an emerging virus can be added as a prototype immediately.

The advantage did not persist with three or more examples, in rare-class-only episodes, or once a linear classifier was fitted on all available rare-class data. This agrees with the finding that the quality of the embedding, rather than the metric-learning objective, dominates few-shot performance [13, 14], and it shows that claims of superiority for metric-learning approaches on this dataset should be tested against an identically evaluated classification baseline.

The most actionable result concerns the rare classes that previous 22-class work did not analyse. Dengue, Sapovirus, Guanarito and LCM were poorly recognised by prototype classification although they are nearly linearly separable from their confusers in the same feature space. Distance to a class mean ignores differences in class spread, which is plausible for rare classes whose few micrographs differ in staining and particle density. A validation-selected logistic regression recovered much of the gap to the fully supervised reference B2 (macro-F1 0.846 ± 0.012 vs 0.897) without retraining the encoder. It needs enough examples, however: with one to five examples per class, nearest-mean or distribution calibration should be preferred.

Published 22-class results train on all classes and use different or unreported splits [6, 7], so they are not directly comparable with ours; B2, trained on all classes with our pipeline, reached 93.10 % accuracy on the official split.

Limitations. The rare classes have 2–8 test micrographs each, so per-class F1 for Sapovirus (8 patches) and Guanarito (7 patches) is highly uncertain. The ablations were trained once. Hyper-parameters of the frozen-feature classifiers were chosen on small rare-class validation sets, which adds selection variance, as the Mahalanobis results show. We studied one backbone and one dataset, and unknown-virus detection (Appendix Appendix B) is not yet adequate for deployment.

5. Conclusions

We present the first generalised few-shot evaluation of all 22 classes of the public TEM virus dataset on its official split, with the rare classes never used for training. A Siamese metric-learning encoder matches a strong re-

implemented classifier on the benchmark and recognises rare viruses better when only one reference patch is available, but not with more examples. Most of the attainable improvement on rare viruses comes from replacing nearest-prototype classification with a validation-selected linear classifier on frozen features, for either training objective. The protocol, code and per-patch predictions are released for future comparisons.

Declaration of competing interests

The authors declare that they have no known competing financial interests or personal relationships that could have appeared to influence the work reported in this paper. [Authors to confirm.]

Funding

[To be completed by the authors.]

CRediT authorship contribution statement

[To be completed by the authors, e.g. Conceptualization, Methodology, Software, Validation, Writing – original draft, Writing – review & editing.]

Data and code availability

The TEM virus dataset is publicly available [2]. Code, configurations, training logs, evaluation outputs and per-patch predictions are available at [repository URL]; trained checkpoints are available as release assets.

Declaration of generative AI and AI-assisted technologies in the manuscript preparation process

During the preparation of this work the authors used Claude (Anthropic) to write analysis code and to draft and edit the manuscript text. After using this tool, the authors reviewed and edited the content as needed and take full responsibility for the content of the published article. [Authors to confirm and adapt.]

Appendix A. Pilot experiments

Four base classes were withheld from encoder training (F2: Astrovirus, Influenza, Papilloma, Rotavirus; F3: Marburg, Orf, Adenovirus, CCHF) and used as unseen classes, with micrograph-disjoint episodes (600 episodes, 15 queries per class). Without training, ImageNet features reached only 66.0 % nearest-mean accuracy on the 14 classes (88.1 % with a linear probe). After training, the backbone feature transferred to the unseen classes, whereas the 128-dimensional head did not; in the F3 GFSL test head accuracy on the unseen classes was 26.9 % (Table A.7).

Appendix B. Additional results

References

[1] D. J. Matuszewski, I.-M. Sintorn, TEM virus images: Benchmark dataset and deep learning classification, Computer Methods and Programs in Biomedicine 209 (2021) 106318. doi:10.1016/j.cmpb.2021.106318.

[2] D. J. Matuszewski, I.-M. Sintorn, TEM virus dataset, version 3, Mendeley Data (2021). doi:10.17632/x4dwwfwtw3.3.

[3] L. Nanni, A. Loreggia, L. Barcellona, S. Ghidoni, Building ensemble of deep networks: Convolutional networks and transformers, IEEE Access (2023). doi:10.1109/ACCESS.2023.3330442.

[4] K. Bengtsson Bernander, I.-M. Sintorn, R. Strand, I. Nyström, Classification of rotation-invariant biomedical images using equivariant neural networks, Scientific Reports 14 (2024) 14995. doi:10.1038/s41598-024-65597-x.

[5] N. Sikder, M. A.-M. Khan, A. K. Bairagi, M. Masud, J. J. Tiang, A.-A. Nahid, Heterogeneous virus classification using a functional deep learning model based on transmission electron microscopy images, Scientific Reports 14 (2024) 28954. doi:10.1038/s41598-024-80013-0.

[6] M. Usman, H. Sultan, J. S. Hong, S. G. Kim, R. Akram, H. A. H. Gondal, M. H. Tariq, K. R. Park, Dilated multilevel fused network for virus classification using transmission electron microscopy images, Engineering Applications of Artificial Intelligence 138 (2024) 109348. doi:10.1016/j.engappai.2024.109348.

[7] Hoque, et al., A comparative and hybrid study of CNN and transformer models for multi-class virus classification in TEM, arXiv preprint arXiv:2606.14722, preprint. VERIFY full author list (2026).

[8] S. Gidaris, N. Komodakis, Dynamic few-shot visual learning without

forgetting, in: Proceedings of the IEEE Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition (CVPR), 2018.

[9] J. Bromley, I. Guyon, Y. LeCun, E. Säckinger, R. Shah, Signature verification using a "Siamese" time delay neural network, in: Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems 6, 1993, vERIFY pages.

[10] G. Koch, R. Zemel, R. Salakhutdinov, Siamese neural networks for one-shot image recognition, in: ICML Deep Learning Workshop, 2015.

[11] J. Snell, K. Swersky, R. Zemel, Prototypical networks for few-shot learning, in: Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems 30, 2017, arXiv:1703.05175.

[12] P. Khosla, P. Teterwak, C. Wang, A. Sarna, Y. Tian, P. Isola, A. Maschinot, C. Liu, D. Krishnan, Supervised contrastive learning, in: Advances in Neural Information Processing Systems 33, 2020, vERIFY author list.

[13] W.-Y. Chen, Y.-C. Liu, Z. Kira, Y.-C. F. Wang, J.-B. Huang, A closer look at few-shot classification, in: International Conference on Learning Representations (ICLR), 2019.

[14] Y. Tian, Y. Wang, D. Krishnan, J. B. Tenenbaum, P. Isola, Rethinking few-shot image classification: A good embedding is all you need?, in: European Conference on Computer Vision (ECCV), 2020.

[15] Y. Guo, N. C. Codella, L. Karlinsky, J. V. Codella, J. R. Smith, K. Saenko, T. Rosing, R. Feris, A broader study of cross-domain few-

shot learning, in: European Conference on Computer Vision (ECCV), 2020, arXiv:1912.07200. VERIFY author list.

[16] G. Huang, Z. Liu, L. van der Maaten, K. Q. Weinberger, Densely connected convolutional networks, in: Proceedings of the IEEE Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition (CVPR), 2017.

[17] J. Deng, W. Dong, R. Socher, L.-J. Li, K. Li, L. Fei-Fei, ImageNet: A large-scale hierarchical image database, in: Proceedings of the IEEE Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition (CVPR), 2009.

[18] I. Loshchilov, F. Hutter, Decoupled weight decay regularization, in: International Conference on Learning Representations (ICLR), 2019.

[19] A. Hermans, L. Beyer, B. Leibe, In defense of the triplet loss for person re-identification, arXiv preprint arXiv:1703.07737 (2017).

[20] P. Bateni, R. Goyal, V. Masrani, F. Wood, L. Sigal, Improved few-shot visual classification, in: Proceedings of the IEEE/CVF Conference on Computer Vision and Pattern Recognition (CVPR), 2020.

[21] S. Yang, L. Liu, M. Xu, Free lunch for few-shot learning: Distribution calibration, in: International Conference on Learning Representations (ICLR), 2021.

[22] B. Efron, R. J. Tibshirani, An Introduction to the Bootstrap, Chapman & Hall, 1993.

[23] Q. McNemar, Note on the sampling error of the difference between correlated proportions or percentages, Psychometrika 12 (2) (1947) 153–157.

Table 1: Patches (micrographs) per class in the official split.

Class	Role	Train	Validation	Test
Adenovirus	base	160 (40)	44 (13)	86 (14)
Astrovirus	base	266 (46)	86 (15)	66 (15)
CCHF	base	249 (44)	100 (15)	86 (15)
Cowpox	base	189 (30)	72 (10)	59 (10)
Ebola	base	1,118 (65)	469 (22)	363 (22)
Influenza	base	497 (56)	281 (19)	170 (19)
Lassa	base	279 (62)	114 (21)	128 (21)
Marburg	base	511 (57)	174 (19)	173 (19)
Nipah virus	base	142 (25)	40 (8)	35 (8)
Norovirus	base	231 (32)	104 (11)	84 (11)
Orf	base	92 (38)	76 (13)	31 (13)
Papilloma	base	693 (19)	227 (6)	187 (6)
Rift Valley	base	1,144 (77)	414 (26)	392 (26)
Rotavirus	base	169 (22)	48 (7)	40 (7)
Dengue	rare	72 (19)	15 (6)	44 (7)
Guanarito	rare	31 (13)	10 (4)	7 (4)
LCM	rare	31 (22)	10 (7)	14 (8)
Machupo	rare	69 (20)	16 (6)	23 (7)
Pseudocowpox	rare	48 (20)	21 (7)	16 (7)
Sapovirus	rare	19 (8)	11 (3)	8 (3)
TBE	rare	39 (25)	12 (8)	11 (8)
West Nile	rare	88 (5)	66 (2)	34 (2)
Total		6,137 (745)	2,410 (248)	2,057 (252)

Table 2: 14-class official test split (1,900 patches, 206 micrographs). Macro-averaged precision, sensitivity (recall) and specificity; mean ± SD over seeds. [a]Without test-time augmentation.

Model	Acc. (%)	Macro-F1	Prec.	Sens.	Spec.	Micrograph acc. (%)
DenseNet201, published [1][a]	93.10	0.921	0.926	0.921	–	–
B1: same model re-trained here (1 seed)	94.53	0.938	0.930	0.950	0.9957	95.15
Siamese SupCon, backbone feature (3 seeds)	94.77 ± 0.18	0.942 ± 0.004	0.944 ± 0.005	0.945 ± 0.003	0.9958 ± 0.0001	96.60 ± 0.49
Ablation: batch-hard triplet (1 seed)	93.58	0.929	0.933	0.928	0.9948	96.12
Ablation: SupCon + cosine CE (1 seed)	94.37	0.938	0.947	0.934	0.9954	96.60
Siamese 128-d head (not pre-specified)	95.70 ± 0.38	0.952 ± 0.003	0.955 ± 0.005	0.951 ± 0.003	0.9965 ± 0.0003	96.93 ± 0.28

Table 3: 22-class GFSL on the official test split (2,057 patches, 252 micrographs) with nearest-class-mean classification; rare classes enter only as prototypes.

Features	Acc. (%)	Macro-F1	Base acc. (%)	Rare mean-class acc. (%)
Siamese backbone feature (3 seeds)	89.55 ± 0.34	0.786 ± 0.008	91.8 ± 0.3	74.5 ± 2.7
B1 backbone feature (1 seed)	87.99	0.779	90.1	75.4
Siamese 128-d head	89.34 ± 0.17	0.693 ± 0.013	94.1 ± 0.1	39.1 ± 5.1
Ablation: batch-hard triplet	88.67	0.779	90.7	76.4
Ablation: SupCon + cosine CE	89.35	0.794	91.2	79.4
Reference B2: trained on all 22 classes	*93.10*	*0.897*	*95.1*	*81.8*

Table 4: Pairwise separability on the validation split (binary LR trained on training patches). Siamese values are means over seeds.

	Siamese features			B1 features	
Pair	AUROC	LR acc.	NCM acc.	AUROC	Val. patches
Dengue vs Sapovirus	1.000	1.00	0.91	1.000	15/11
Dengue vs TBE	0.972	0.95	0.80	0.989	15/12
Dengue vs Astrovirus	1.000	0.95	0.87	1.000	15/86
Sapovirus vs Norovirus	0.993	0.99	0.99	0.992	11/104
Sapovirus vs Astrovirus	0.957	0.88	0.49	0.946	11/86
Guanarito vs Lassa	0.986	0.96	0.85	0.990	10/114
Guanarito vs Machupo	0.956	0.85	0.67	0.963	10/16
LCM vs Machupo	0.981	0.91	0.87	0.988	10/16

Table 5: 22-class GFSL on the official test split with classifiers on frozen backbone features; hyper-parameters selected on validation. $K = 1$, $K = 5$: rare mean-class accuracy with only K training patches per rare class. *Validation winner for every checkpoint.

Features	Classifier	Val. F1	Acc. (%)	Macro-F1	Rare (%)	K=1 (%)	K=5 (%)
Siamese	Nearest class mean	0.758 ± 0.019	89.56 ± 0.36	0.786 ± 0.008	74.5 ± 2.7	38.5 ± 3.8	64.4 ± 2.3
	Logistic regression*	0.852 ± 0.009	92.71 ± 0.39	0.846 ± 0.012	79.1 ± 1.9	18.0 ± 0.2	57.4 ± 1.5
	Shrunk Mahalanobis	0.838 ± 0.008	92.37 ± 0.53	0.858 ± 0.007	79.2 ± 2.7	26.9 ± 3.5	52.9 ± 2.4
	Distribution calibration	0.753 ± 0.012	89.99 ± 0.68	0.780 ± 0.012	73.4 ± 1.2	45.9 ± 2.7	63.5 ± 1.8
B1	Nearest class mean	0.786	87.99	0.779	75.4	30.5	70.7
	Logistic regression*	0.887	93.34	0.870	81.5	15.7	60.1
	Shrunk Mahalanobis	0.870	91.54	0.846	77.0	16.1	52.1
	Distribution calibration	0.773	89.16	0.772	79.6	45.7	73.6

Table 6: K-shot GFSL with nearest class mean: rare-class mean accuracy (%) when each rare class has K training patches (100 draws).

K	Siamese features	B1 features
1	37.3 ± 2.3	30.5
3	59.6 ± 1.7	62.1
5	64.7 ± 1.2	68.8
10	70.0 ± 1.5	72.8

Table A.7: Pilot experiments (accuracy in %, or harmonic mean of base and unseen accuracy).

Experiment	Frozen ImageNet	Trained, backbone feature	Trained, 128-d head
F2: 4-way 5-shot on held-out classes	86.9	96.9 (+10.0 ± 0.4)	84.8
F3: 4-way 5-shot on held-out classes	91.2	96.0 (+4.8 ± 0.3)	93.1
F3: GFSL harmonic mean (10 base + 4 held-out)	0.676	0.843	0.419

Table B.8: Test F1 of the weakest rare classes. Test patches: Dengue 44, Sapovirus 8, Guanarito 7, LCM 14, Machupo 23.

Features, classifier	Dengue	Sapovirus	Guanarito	LCM	Machupo
Siamese, Nearest class mean	0.12	0.20	0.43	0.49	0.62
Siamese, Logistic regression	0.37	0.36	0.77	0.61	0.79
Siamese, Shrunk Mahalanobis	0.39	0.27	0.78	0.76	0.84
Siamese, Distribution calibration	0.16	0.22	0.44	0.45	0.64
B1, Nearest class mean	0.06	0.20	0.61	0.46	0.67
B1, Logistic regression	0.30	0.34	1.00	0.67	0.76
B1, Shrunk Mahalanobis	0.37	0.31	0.77	0.55	0.78
B1, Distribution calibration	0.20	0.26	0.48	0.45	0.57

Table B.9: 8-way episodes over the rare classes (micrograph-disjoint support and query, 600 episodes) and unknown-virus detection (rare-class test patches as unknown; score = maximum cosine similarity to the 14 base prototypes).

Features	1-shot (%)	5-shot (%)	AUROC	FPR at 95 % TPR (%)
Siamese (3 seeds)	64.9 ± 1.3	78.2 ± 1.0	0.883 ± 0.003	58.2 ± 3.1
B1 (1 seed)	66.6	81.4	0.877	63.7
SupCon + cosine CE	65.6	79.0	0.899	52.9
Batch-hard triplet	62.9	77.1	0.868	70.7